

Preface

Who is This Book For?

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Why Write Yet Another Book About Linear Algebra?

The direct answer to this question is simple: I really think most resources are doing a *bad job* of explaining fundamental linear algebra to new students ¹. Not because they lack material or the complete picture - but because the common approach to teaching fundamental mathematical topics just doesn't work well for most people ².

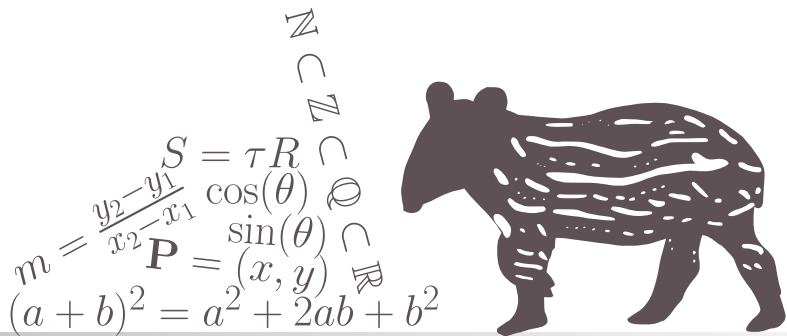
Introduction courses to fundamental mathematical topics usually look like this: here're some basic definitions, let's derive some specific results from them - now go apply these in your field.

¹and honestly, this isn't restricted to linear algebra but applies to all fundamental mathematical topics - but it's a classic case

²the main exception is students of pure mathematics and people who can easily deal with extremely abstract concepts - a very specific group of people at the end of the day

1

MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND



Is this what's written in the actual chapter header?

It should be!

1.1 PREFACE

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Testing some equations: let $\vec{x}, \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$. Then from the fact that $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a vector space, we get

$$\vec{c} = \alpha\vec{x} + \beta\vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n. \quad (1.1)$$

However, if $\vec{a} \in \mathbb{R}^m$, where $m \neq n$, then $\alpha\vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^m$, and therefore $\vec{c}$ is not defined (i.e. Equation 1.1 is irrelevant).

Now, this is a test of the *aligned* environment, which allows for multiple (correctly-aligned) lines of equations and having the label only once (instead of per line, as in the *align* environment):

$$\begin{aligned} \sin(2x) &= \frac{1}{2i} \left(e^{2xi} - e^{-2xi} \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2i} \left(\left[e^{xi} \right]^2 - \left[e^{-xi} \right]^2 \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2i} \underbrace{\left(e^{xi} - e^{-xi} \right)}_{\sin(x)} \underbrace{\left(e^{xi} + e^{-xi} \right)}_{2 \cos(x)} \\ &= 2 \sin(x) \cos(x). \end{aligned} \quad (1.2)$$

Note 1.1 Test note

This is a test note. I will try to also refernce it later.



Now, I wish to reference [Note 1.1](#). Did it work?

Also, let us look at an example.

Example 1.1 Some test example

If $x = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & -3 \end{bmatrix}$ and $y = \begin{bmatrix} 5 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$, then $n = 3$ and $m = 2$. Clearly, $n \neq m$ - and so $\alpha \vec{x} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, while $\beta \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^2$. This means that $\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}$ is not defined.



...let's check if referencing an example works correctly: can you see [Example 1.1](#)?

I believe it is now time for some figures! See [Figure 1.1](#).

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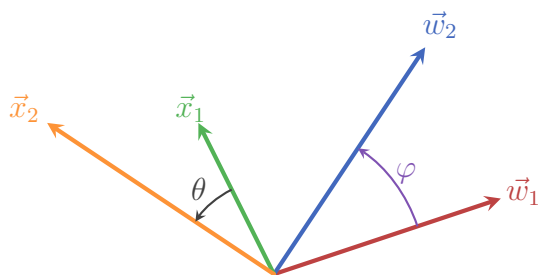


Figure 1.1: This is the first test figure.

Does it look ok?

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CHAPTER 1. MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND

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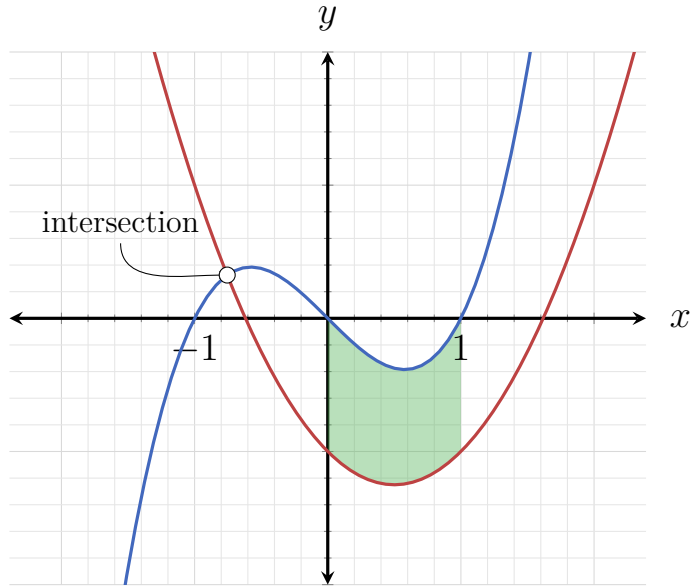


Figure 1.2: And this is another test figure! I hope it works.

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CHAPTER 1. MATHEMATICAL BACKGROUND

sociosqu ad litora torquent per conubia nostra, per inceptos hymenaeos. Praesent sapien turpis, fermentum vel, eleifend faucibus, vehicula eu, lacus.¹

$$T(\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}) = \alpha T(\vec{x}) + \beta T(\vec{y})$$

$$\langle \vec{a} | \vec{b} \rangle = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i$$

$$\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0 \Leftrightarrow \vec{a} \perp \vec{b}$$

$$\mathbb{I}_n = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\vec{v} = \alpha_1 \hat{e}_1 + \alpha_2 \hat{e}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n \hat{e}_n$$

$$(\vec{A} \cdot \vec{B})^T = \vec{B}^T \cdot \vec{A}^T$$

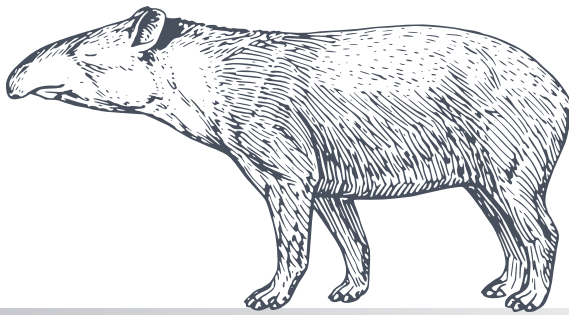
$$\vec{A} \vec{x} = \lambda \vec{x}$$

$$\det(\vec{A} \cdot \vec{B}) = \det(\vec{A}) \cdot \det(\vec{B})$$

$$\vec{C} = \vec{A} \cdot \vec{B} \Rightarrow c_j^i = \langle a^i | b_j \rangle$$

CHAPTER

2



THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

This chapter introduces the most important concepts of linear algebra, such as vector spaces, linear transformations, and eigenvectors and eigenvalues. Starting with simple 2- and 3-dimensional geometric concepts, the chapter guides the reader through the topics by introducing them in a visual and intuitive way, only generalizing them afterwards.

CHAPTER 2. THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

After reading this chapter and successfully completing the assignments at the end, the reader should have an intuitive understanding of basic linear algebra.

2.1 VECTORS AND VECTOR SPACES

Summary 2.1

This section presents the two most fundamental concepts in linear algebra: **vectors** and **vector spaces**.

We will:

1. introduce **vectors**, their properties and basic operations between vectors.
2. Learn how vectors can be described algebraically using **coordinate systems/basis sets**.
3. See how we can define **vector spaces** and **vector subspaces**, and their uses.
4. And finally, we will describe the geometric meaning of all these structures and how they relate to analytical geometry in 2- and 3-dimensions.



(here comes the actual text)

...

2.2 LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

Summary 2.2 The Next Two Sections

This section and the one immediately following it deal with a rather simple, yet very powerful type of functions between vector spaces: **linear transformations**.

In this section we will:

1. see why are we interested in linear transformations,
2. what are their properties, and
3. how they can provide a powerful tool for many different applications.

In the next section we will explore how we can turn the calculations of linear transformations into an extremely easy and straight-forward process using **matrices**.



(here comes lots of intro text on linear transformations and all of the stuff about them except what i already wrote... which is the very end of the section)

Testing LTs visualization:

...

Linear transformations have a very nice property which makes applying them on different vectors an extremely efficient process. Consider the linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ which is a composition of scaling by a factor of 2 in the y -direction followed by a rotation of 90° anti-clockwise around the origin. Now let's say that we wish to calculate how T transforms the vector

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

In principle, we could simply apply the operations one after the other on $\vec{a}$:

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{a}). \quad (2.1)$$

2.2. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

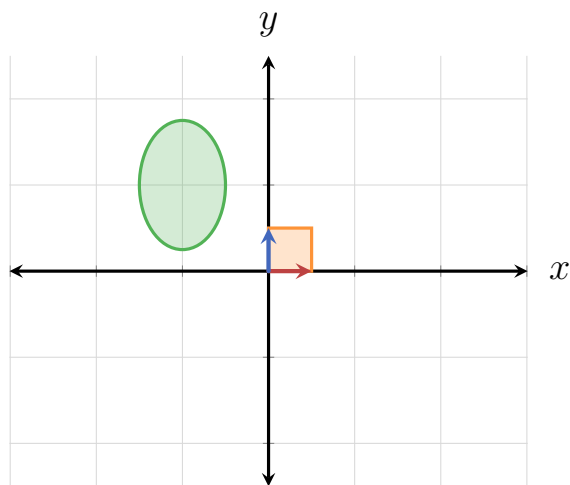


Figure 2.1: Testing a visualization idea for linear transformations.

Now, what happens if we wish to calculate a more complicated linear transformation, which is both composed out of many more basic transformations - and also acts on higher-dimensional vectors? Performing each transformation step might not be so straight-forward, and is definitely not an efficient process. In fact, even if we're dealing with a simple example just like the one we just saw, we would still need to apply it every time we want to calculate how a new vector is transformed.

It turns out that thanks to the simplicity of linear transformations¹ we only need to perform a few simple calculations per transformation to practically get any possible application of it on any vector!

To see how this is the case, let's go back to our simple 2-dimensional example. First, recall that we can express any vector in terms of the standard basis vectors (REF), which in this case gives us (note the color-coding)

$$\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{3} \\ \textcolor{blue}{2} \end{bmatrix} = \textcolor{red}{3} \overset{\hat{e}_1}{\downarrow} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + \textcolor{blue}{2} \overset{\hat{e}_2}{\downarrow} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.2)$$

¹more correctly: to the strict rules they enforce

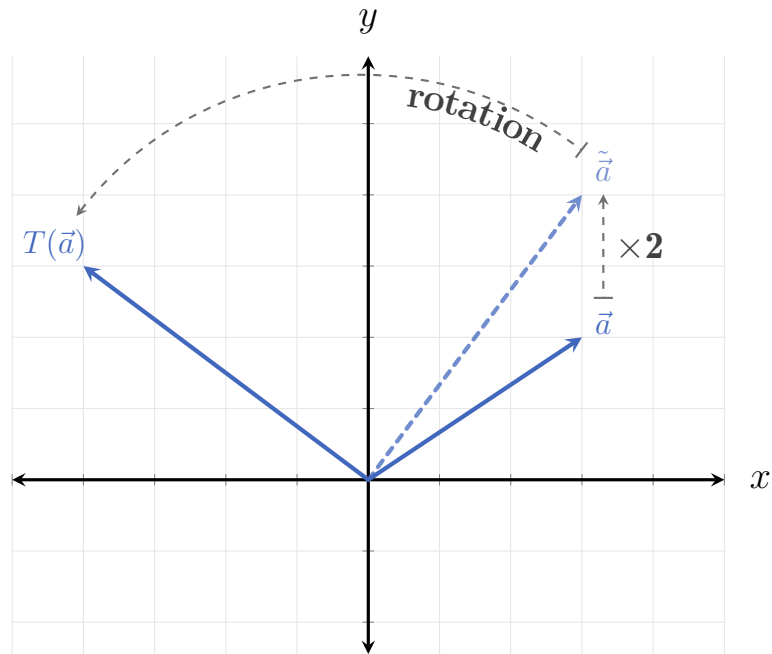


Figure 2.2: The transformation T applied to $\vec{a}$: first the vector is scaled by 2 in the y -direction, and then rotated by 90° anti-clockwise.

We can then apply the defining properties of linear transformations (REF) on $\vec{a}$:

$$\begin{aligned}
 T \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} &= T \left(3 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right) \\
 &= T \left(3 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \right) + T \left(2 \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \right) \\
 &= 3T \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} + 2T \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= 3T(\hat{e}_1) + 2T(\hat{e}_2).
 \end{aligned} \tag{2.3}$$

2.2. LINEAR TRANSFORMATIONS

Now, applying T to the two standard basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ we get

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{e}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} &\xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_1) \\ \hat{e}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} &\xrightarrow{\quad} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\quad} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_2)\end{aligned}\tag{2.4}$$

And when we use these transformed basis vectors in the linear combination we finally get

$$\begin{aligned}\textcolor{red}{3}T(\hat{e}_1) + \textcolor{blue}{2}T(\hat{e}_2) &= \textcolor{red}{3} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + \textcolor{blue}{2} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix},\end{aligned}\tag{2.5}$$

which is exactly what we got when we calculated T 's effect directly on $\vec{a}$ (cf. [Equation 2.7](#)).

Notice exactly what happened: in the standard basis representation, $\vec{a}$ had the coefficients $\textcolor{red}{3}$ and $\textcolor{blue}{2}$ for $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$, respectively. When applying T to $\vec{a}$ these two coefficients remained, but the basis changed: instead of $\{\hat{e}_1, \hat{e}_2\}$, the two basis vectors became $\{T(\hat{e}_1), T(\hat{e}_2)\}$.

Of course, this is not unique to $\vec{a}$. For example, let's look at another vector,

$$\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{2} \\ \textcolor{blue}{-4} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Its coefficients in the standard basis representation are $\textcolor{red}{2}$ and $\textcolor{blue}{-4}$, respectively. So we expect $T(\vec{b})$ to be

$$\begin{aligned}T(\vec{b}) &= \textcolor{red}{2}T(\hat{e}_1) - \textcolor{blue}{4}T(\hat{e}_2) \\ &= \textcolor{red}{2} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} - \textcolor{blue}{4} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.\end{aligned}\tag{2.6}$$

CHAPTER 2. THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

If we now calculate $T(\vec{b})$ directly, we get the following:

$$\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -8 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{b}). \quad (2.7)$$

What this insight shows us is that given a linear transformation, we only need to know how it transforms the respective standard basis vectors in order to calculate how it transform any vector in its domain. The transformed version of the vector would simply be the linear combination of these transformed basis vectors, with the coefficients given by the vector's presentation in the standard basis. It really can't get any simpler than that!

To make this a bit more formal, let's look at the most generic case: say $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$ is a linear transformation². Then applying T to a vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ in its standard basis representation,

$$\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix},$$

we get

$$\begin{aligned} T(\vec{v}) &= T \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix} \\ &= T(v_1 \hat{e}_1 + v_2 \hat{e}_2 + \cdots + v_n \hat{e}_n) \\ &= v_1 T(\hat{e}_1) + v_2 T(\hat{e}_2) + \cdots + v_n T(\hat{e}_n). \end{aligned} \quad (2.8)$$

This is an incredibly powerful insight which allows us to save a lot of calculations - and which we will use in the next section to make the calculations of linear transformations *even more* concise and simple, using the power of...

²we'll deal with the more general case of $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ where $n \neq m$ in the next section.

2.3 MATRICES

2.3.1 Representing Linear Transformations as Matrices

Following our example from the end of the previous section, let's look again at the result of applying T from Equation 2.7 on the vector $\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}$.

Since we know how T transforms the basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ (Equation 2.4), we can $T(\vec{a})$ in the following way:

$$T(\vec{a}) = \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 4 \end{bmatrix} = \underset{\substack{\uparrow \\ T(\hat{e}_1)}}{\overset{a_1}{\downarrow} 3} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} + \underset{\substack{\uparrow \\ T(\hat{e}_2)}}{\overset{a_2}{\downarrow} 2} \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 3 - 2 \cdot 2 \\ 1 \cdot 3 + 0 \cdot 2 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.9)$$

Then, we collect all the coefficients in black into a single structure, which we call a **matrix**:

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.10)$$

Finally, we define the action of the matrix $\mathbf{M}$ on the vector $\vec{a}$ as following:

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{a} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 3 - 2 \cdot 2 \\ 1 \cdot 3 + 0 \cdot 2 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{a}). \quad (2.11)$$

Of course, we should make sure that the matrix $\mathbf{M}$ we just defined works for other vectors as well. If we apply $\mathbf{M}$ to the second vector from our example, $\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix}$, we get

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{b} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 2 \\ -4 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 2 - 2 \cdot (-4) \\ 1 \cdot 2 + 0 \cdot (-4) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 8 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix} = T(\vec{b}), \quad (2.12)$$

which is exactly the result we got in Equation 2.6. Great!

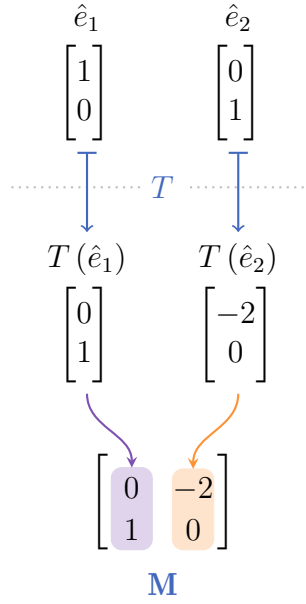
CHAPTER 2. THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

Why not continue checking how this matrix-vector product we developed works for other vectors? First, let's check $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ for which we already know the results (Equation 2.7):

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{M}\hat{e}_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 0 \\ 1 \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_1), \\ \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot 0 - 2 \cdot 1 \\ 1 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = T(\hat{e}_2),\end{aligned}\tag{2.13}$$

exactly the results we expected.

Perhaps you've noticed something by now - the columns of $\mathbf{M}$ are exactly the vectors $T(\hat{e}_1)$ and $T(\hat{e}_2)$ in the right order:



The most general transformation we can have using $\mathbf{M}$ would be applying it to a general vector, $\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^2$:

$$\mathbf{M}\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \cdot x - 2 \cdot y \\ 1 \cdot x + 0 \cdot y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -2y \\ x \end{bmatrix}.\tag{2.14}$$

2.3. MATRICES

Of course, this result is exactly what we expect, as we can see when we apply each step of T on the generic vector $\vec{v}$:

$$\begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{\times 2 \text{ in } y} \begin{bmatrix} x \\ 2y \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{90^\circ \text{ rotation}} \begin{bmatrix} -2y \\ x \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.15)$$

OK, up until now everything we did was for a specific transformation we called T . However, we can build a matrix for a general linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$. Such a transformation has the form

$$T \begin{bmatrix} x \\ y \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ax + by \\ cx + dy \end{bmatrix},$$

where $a, b, c, d \in \mathbb{R}$ (REF), and using the same process as in [Equation 2.9](#) we get the general matrix

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.16)$$

Just like in our specific example, the columns of $\mathbf{M}$ are exactly the images of the basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$, respectively. To confirm this, let's apply the $\mathbf{M}$ on both basis vectors:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{1} \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot \textcolor{red}{1} + b \cdot 0 \\ c \cdot \textcolor{red}{1} + d \cdot 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \\ c \end{bmatrix} = M_1, \\ \mathbf{M}\hat{e}_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \textcolor{blue}{1} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot 0 + b \cdot \textcolor{blue}{1} \\ c \cdot 0 + d \cdot \textcolor{blue}{1} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} b \\ d \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{M}_2. \end{aligned} \quad (2.17)$$

Note that I use M_1 and M_2 to denote the 1-st and 2-nd columns of $\mathbf{M}$, respectively.

In most textbooks and courses I've seen, the process of multiplying a matrix $\mathbf{M}$ by a vector $\vec{v}$ is described as following: the i -th component of the resulting vector (in our case $i \in \{1, 2\}$) is the *dot product* of the i -th row of $\mathbf{M}$ and the vector $\vec{v}$ itself. This is exactly what happens in practice in the development process we went through here - if we name the resulting vector of $\mathbf{M}\vec{v}$ as $\vec{w}$ we get its following two components:

$$\left. \begin{aligned} w_1 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & b \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{x} \\ \textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a \cdot \textcolor{red}{x} + b \cdot \textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a\textcolor{red}{x} + b\textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} \\ w_2 &= \begin{bmatrix} c & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \textcolor{red}{x} \\ \textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} c \cdot \textcolor{red}{x} + d \cdot \textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} c\textcolor{red}{x} + d\textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix} \end{aligned} \right\} \rightarrow \vec{w} = \begin{bmatrix} a\textcolor{red}{x} + b\textcolor{blue}{y} \\ c\textcolor{red}{x} + d\textcolor{blue}{y} \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.18)$$

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Of course, this is just the case for a matrix representing a general linear transformation $T : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$. Matrices representing such transformations have 4 components, since they are made of 2 basis vectors as columns, each having 2 components (since the vectors live in $\mathbb{R}^2$). We also say that the matrix lives in the space $\mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$.

In general (also in higher-dimensional cases), we use 2 indices to denote the components of any matrix: the 1st index for the *row* of the component and the 2nd index for the *column* of the component. For example, a general matrix $\mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$ can be written as

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.19)$$

where it is important to remember that there are two indices here - and not a single number. For example, a_{11} should be read as “a-one-one” (i.e. the component in the 1st row and the 1st column), and not as “a-eleven”. Similarly, a_{12} is “a-one-two” (not “a-tweleve”), a_{21} is “a-two-one”, etc. The reason this notation is used (as much as it might be confusing at first) is lazyness: nobody wants to write redundant commas (i.e. $a_{1,1}$). It is what it is, and you will get used to it “_(‘_)_”

We can now finally move on to the most general form of a linear transformation between a real vector space to itself, i.e. $T : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n$. The most general vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ has the form

$$\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.20)$$

and therefore the application of a generic linear transformation from $\mathbb{R}^n$ to itself on $\vec{v}$ yields the vector

$$T(\vec{v}) = \vec{w} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11}v_1 + a_{12}v_2 + \cdots + a_{1n}v_n \\ a_{21}v_1 + a_{22}v_2 + \cdots + a_{2n}v_n \\ \vdots \\ a_{n1}v_1 + a_{n2}v_2 + \cdots + a_{nn}v_n \end{bmatrix}, \quad (2.21)$$

where $a_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}$ (with $i, j \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$). Of course, denoting the components as a_{ij} is alluding to the next step - collecting them into a matrix:

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.22)$$

2.3. MATRICES

Just like in the 2×2 case, the i -th column vector of $\mathbf{A}$ shows how it transforms $\hat{e}_i$ (which in this case lives in the space $\mathbb{R}^n$, of course):

$$\mathbf{M} = \begin{bmatrix} \overset{T(\hat{e}_1)}{\downarrow} a_{11} & \overset{T(\hat{e}_2)}{\downarrow} a_{12} & \cdots & \overset{T(\hat{e}_n)}{\downarrow} a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Therefore, in general we define the product of an $n \times n$ matrix $\mathbf{A}$ (otherwise written as $\mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$) and a vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ to be

$$\mathbf{A}\vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \cdots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ \vdots \\ v_n \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} a_{11}v_1 + a_{12}v_2 + \cdots + a_{1n}v_n \\ a_{21}v_1 + a_{22}v_2 + \cdots + a_{2n}v_n \\ \vdots \\ a_{n1}v_1 + a_{n2}v_2 + \cdots + a_{nn}v_n \end{bmatrix} = \vec{w}. \quad (2.23)$$

Indeed, this can be presented (as it often does) in the following way: the i -th coefficient of the vector $\vec{w} = \mathbf{A}\vec{v}$ is the dot product of the i -th row of $\mathbf{A}$ and the vector $\vec{v}$. To see this in practice, follow closely how each of the rows 1, 2 and n of $\mathbf{A}$ in Equation 2.23 are dot-multiplied with $\vec{v}$ to yields the corresponding component of $\vec{w}$.

Note 2.1 Square Matrices

All the kinds of matrices we defined so far are called **square matrices**, since they have an equal number of rows and columns (since they map from any vector space $\mathbb{R}^n$ to itself) - i.e. their dimensions are of the form $n \times n$.

However, in general matrices can represent any kind of linear transformation - also those that map between different real vector spaces, i.e. $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ (where $n \neq m$). These matrices would be of order $m \times n$, and are of course **not** square matrices. However, since square matrices are the easiest to understand when first learning the topic, and they also happen to play a very important role in linear algebra - I chose to concentrate on them in the beginning, before moving on to more general matrices.



2.3.2 The Fundamental Linear Transformations as Matrices

Let us now use the process we developed above to represent the fundamental $\mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ linear transformations (REF) in matrix form. Since we're dealing with transformations from $\mathbb{R}^2$ to itself, the matrices representing these transformations are of dimension 2×2 , i.e. they live in the space $\mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$.

We start with the most boring linear transformation: the identity transformation I . As a reminder, I maps *any* vector $\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^2$ to itself: $I(\vec{v}) = \vec{v}$. In particular, it takes the two standard basis vectors $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ and maps them to themselves:

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{I} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \xrightarrow{I} \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.24)$$

Very exciting indeed. Knowing how I transforms $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ we can use their maps as the columns of the matrix representation of I :

$$\begin{array}{ccc} \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\ \downarrow I & & \downarrow I \\ I(\hat{e}_1) & & I(\hat{e}_2) \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\ \searrow \quad \swarrow & & \\ \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} & & \\ \mathbb{I}_2 & & \end{array} \quad (2.25)$$

($\mathbb{I}$ is a common notation for identity matrices, and the index 2 signifies that this is the specific 2×2 identity matrix)

The next type of fundamental linear transformations we should represent in matrix form are the scaling matrices. Instead of calculating their representation separately, let's directly find the matrix representation of the linear transformation S which scales any vector by α in the x -direction and by β in the y -direction:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & \text{--- } S \text{ ---} & \downarrow \\
 S(\hat{e}_1) & & S(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \alpha \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ \beta \end{bmatrix} \\
 \swarrow \quad \searrow & & \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \alpha & 0 \\ 0 & \beta \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{--- } S \text{ ---} & &
 \end{array} \tag{2.26}$$

S has an important property: it only has non-zero entries in a_{11} and a_{22} : we call these elements together the **main diagonal** of the matrix. A matrix which has non-zero entries only in its main diagonal is unsurprisingly called a **diagonal matrix**³.

Note 2.2 The Identity Matrix is a Diagonal Matrix

In the specific case where $\alpha = \beta = 1$ a scaling matrix essentially does nothing: it scales by 1 in both directions. Indeed, in this case it becomes the identity matrix $\mathbb{I}_2$.

!

The next family of linear transformations to represent as matrices are the rotations around the origin. Again, we don't really need to think too much: just check the results of rotating $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ by θ anti-clockwise. Since $\hat{e}_1$ is a unit vector, rotating it by θ anti-clockwise around the origin gives another unit vector (since rotating a vector doesn't change its norm), which is at an *theta* to the x -axis. Its coordinates are then exactly the polar coordinates of a vector at θ to the x -axis but with $R = 1$ (see REF TO POLAR COORDINATES EQUATION):

$$R_\theta(\hat{e}_1) = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) \end{bmatrix}. \tag{2.27}$$

³this might seem unremarkable now, but in higher dimensions these matrices are very important.

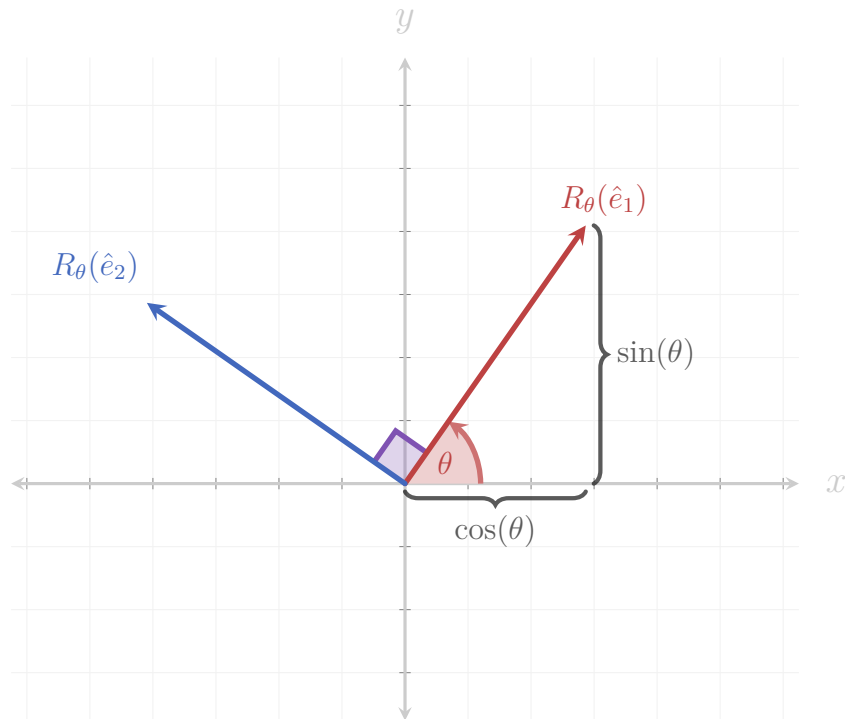


Figure 2.3: The two basis vectors $\hat{e}_1, \hat{e}_2$ rotated by an angle θ anti-clockwise around the origin. The coordinates of the rotated $\hat{e}_1$ are simply the polar coordinates of a general vector which is at an angle θ to the x -axis, with $R = 1$ (since $\hat{e}_1$ is a unit vector).

Since the rotated $\hat{e}_2$ is orthogonal to the rotated $\hat{e}_1$ we can use the orthogonality trick in 2-dimensions to find its coordinates (REF TO ORTHOGONALITY TRICK IN 2D):

$$R_\theta(\hat{e}_2) = \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix}. \quad (2.28)$$

(see [Figure 2.3](#) for a visualization of this idea)

Therefore, the rotation matrix $\mathbf{R}_\theta$ is

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$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & \textcolor{blue}{R_\theta} & \downarrow \\
 R_\theta(\hat{e}_1) & & R_\theta(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin \theta \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow \quad \downarrow & & \\
 \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\theta) \\ \sin \theta \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} -\sin(\theta) \\ \cos(\theta) \end{bmatrix} \\
 \textcolor{blue}{\mathbf{R}_\theta} & &
 \end{array}
 \tag{2.29}$$

Let's check some specific examples of rotating matrices, starting with $\theta = 0$. This gives the matrix

$$\mathbf{R}_0 = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(0) & -\sin(0) \\ \sin(0) & \cos(0) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \mathbb{I}_2, \tag{2.30}$$

which is exactly what we expect, since a rotation by $\theta = 0$ doesn't do anything, so we get back the identity matrix.

A rotation by $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ (equivalent to 90°) is done by the matrix

$$\mathbf{R}_{\frac{\pi}{2}} = \begin{bmatrix} \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) & -\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) \\ \sin\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) & \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}. \tag{2.31}$$

This is a nice result: rotating by $\frac{\pi}{2}$ is equivalent to switching the two basis vector $\hat{e}_1$ and $\hat{e}_2$ and then flipping the “new” $\hat{e}_2$ around so it faces in the negative x -direction.

Before continuing to $\text{mat}R_\pi$ let's see what we expect: rotating a vector by $\theta = \pi$ is simply inverting it (i.e. negating both its coordinates). And indeed,

$$\mathbf{R}_\pi = \begin{bmatrix} \cos(\pi) & -\sin(\pi) \\ \sin(\pi) & \cos(\pi) \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix}, \tag{2.32}$$

CHAPTER 2. THE BASICS OF LINEAR ALGEBRA

which is exactly the identity matrix with all its entries negating. How cool is that?

Ok, next up: reflections! Reflecting a vector across the x -axis is simply flipping it⁴ vertically - so its x -component doesn't change, and its y -component gets flipped. The result for the basis vectors is that $\hat{e}_1$ stays the same (i.e. reflecting $\hat{e}_1$ across the x axis doesn't change it), while $\hat{e}_2$ gets flipped:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & \text{ref}_x & \downarrow \\
 \text{ref}_x(\hat{e}_1) & & \text{ref}_x(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow & & \downarrow \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{ref}_x
 \end{array} \tag{2.33}$$

Similarly, reflecting a vector across the y -axis flips their x -coordinate and keeps

⁴yes, I also laughed when writing this.

2.3. MATRICES

their y -coordinate untouched, i.e. $\hat{e}_1$ gets flipped and $\hat{e}_2$ remains the same:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 \hat{e}_1 & & \hat{e}_2 \\
 \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \downarrow \text{ref}_y & \text{ref}_y & \downarrow \\
 \text{ref}_y(\hat{e}_1) & & \text{ref}_y(\hat{e}_2) \\
 \begin{bmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} & & \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \swarrow \quad \searrow & & \\
 \begin{bmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \\
 \text{ref}_y
 \end{array}
 \tag{2.34}$$

See ?? for a visualization.

Before we can build a general reflection matrix (i.e. representing a reflection across *any* line going through the origin, not only the axes) we need to learn a couple of more things, so we'll skip that for now and hop on to building matrices for shear transformations.

2.4 LINEAR EQUATIONS

2.5 EIGENVECTORS AND EIGENVALUES

2.6 MATRIX DECOMPOSITIONS

$$T(\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}) = \alpha T(\vec{x}) + \beta T(\vec{y})$$

$$\langle \vec{a} | \vec{b} \rangle = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i$$

$$\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0 \Leftrightarrow \vec{a} \perp \vec{b}$$

$$\mathbb{I}_n = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

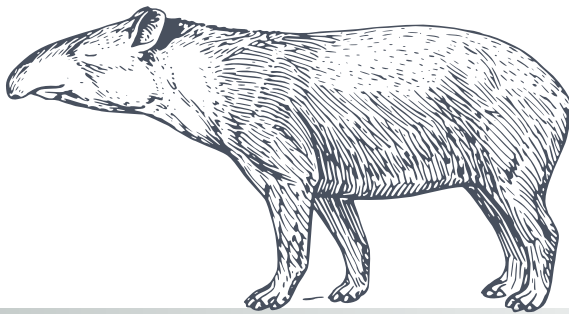
$$\vec{v} = \alpha_1 \hat{e}_1 + \alpha_2 \hat{e}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n \hat{e}_n$$

$$\mathbf{A} \vec{x} = \lambda \vec{x}$$

$$(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B})^T = \mathbf{B}^T \cdot \mathbf{A}^T$$

$$\det(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B}) = \det(\mathbf{A}) \cdot \det(\mathbf{B})$$

$$\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B} \Rightarrow c_{ij} = a_i \cdot b_j$$



CHAPTER

3

INTRODUCING SOME FORMALISM

This is a test text for the Mathematical background chapter. Is this what's written in the actual chapter header? It should be!

$$T(\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}) = \alpha T(\vec{x}) + \beta T(\vec{y})$$

$$\langle \vec{a} | \vec{b} \rangle = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i$$

$$\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0 \Leftrightarrow \vec{a} \perp \vec{b}$$

$$\mathbb{I}_n = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

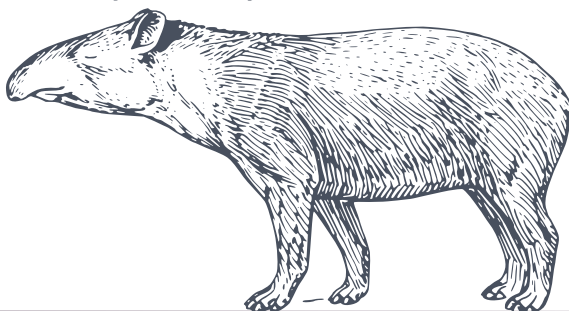
$$\vec{v} = \alpha_1 \hat{e}_1 + \alpha_2 \hat{e}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n \hat{e}_n$$

$$\mathbf{A} \vec{x} = \lambda \vec{x}$$

$$(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B})^T = \mathbf{B}^T \cdot \mathbf{A}^T$$

$$\det(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B}) = \det(\mathbf{A}) \cdot \det(\mathbf{B})$$

$$\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B} \Rightarrow c_{ij} = a_i \cdot b_j$$



CHAPTER

4

ADVANCED TOPICS IN LINEAR ALGEBRA

This is a test text for the Mathematical background chapter. Is this what's written in the actual chapter header? It should be!

$$T(\alpha \vec{x} + \beta \vec{y}) = \alpha T(\vec{x}) + \beta T(\vec{y})$$

$$\langle \vec{a} | \vec{b} \rangle = \vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i$$

$$\vec{a} \cdot \vec{b} = 0 \Leftrightarrow \vec{a} \perp \vec{b}$$

$$\mathbb{I}_n = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

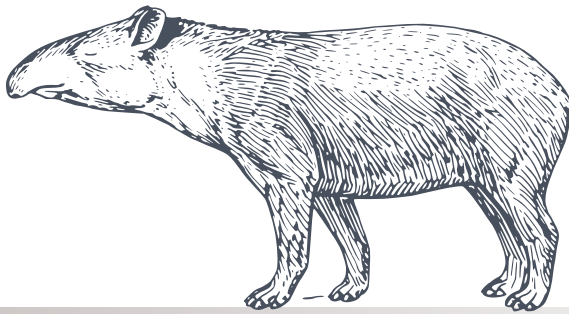
$$\vec{v} = \alpha_1 \hat{e}_1 + \alpha_2 \hat{e}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n \hat{e}_n$$

$$(\vec{A} \cdot \vec{B})^T = \vec{B}^T \cdot \vec{A}^T$$

$$\mathbf{A} \vec{x} = \lambda \vec{x}$$

$$\det(\mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B}) = \det(\mathbf{A}) \cdot \det(\mathbf{B})$$

$$\mathbf{C} = \mathbf{A} \cdot \mathbf{B} \Rightarrow c_{ij} = a_i \cdot b_j$$



CHAPTER

5

FURTHER RELATED TOPICS

This is a test text for the Mathematical background chapter. Is this what's written in the actual chapter header? It should be!

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CHAPTER 5. FURTHER RELATED TOPICS

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